Lec1:
Introduction to distributed database

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Outline

- Introduction and background.
- Definition of Distributed database systems.
- Advantages and disadvantages of Distributed database systems.

Background

- **Database**: Collection of data that provides persistence and integration.
- **DBMS** is software that enables end users or application programmers to share and manage data. It provides a systematic method of creating, updating, retrieving, and storing in formation in a database.

Distributed Database

- **A distributed database (DDB)** is a collection of multiple, logically interrelated databases distributed over a computer network.
- **A distributed database management system (D–DBMS)** is the software that manages the DDB and provides an access mechanism that makes this distribution transparent to the users.
- **Distributed database system (DDBS)** =

  DDB + D–DBMS

Features of DDB

- Databases in the collection are logically interrelated with each other. Often they represent a single logical database.
- Data is physically stored across multiple sites. Data in each site can be managed by a DBMS independent of the other sites.
- The processors in the sites are connected via a network. They do not have any multiprocessor configuration.

Factors Encouraging DDBMS

The following factors encourage moving over to DDBMS:

- Distributed Nature of Organizational Units.
- Need for Sharing of Data
- Support for Both OLTP and OLAP
- Database Recovery
- Support for Multiple Application Software.
- Disconnected operation possible

Lec2:
Distributed Database

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Outline

- **Concepts of Distributed database systems.**
- **Distributed Data Processing.**
- **Layers of Transparency**

Concepts of Distributed database systems.

- Collection of logically-related shared data.
- Data split into fragments.
- Fragments may be replicated.
- Sites linked by a communications network.
- Data at each site is under control of a DBMS.

Distributed Data Processing

- **Distributed Databases Versus Distributed Processing**

The terms distributed database and distributed processing are closely related, yet have distinct meanings. There definitions are as follows:

- **Distributed database** **A set of databases in a distributed system that can appear to applications as a single data source.**
- **Distributed processing** **The operations that occurs when an application distributes its tasks among different computers in a network. For example, a database application typically distributes front-end presentation tasks to client computers and allows a back-end database server to manage shared access to a database.**

Promises of Distributed Databases

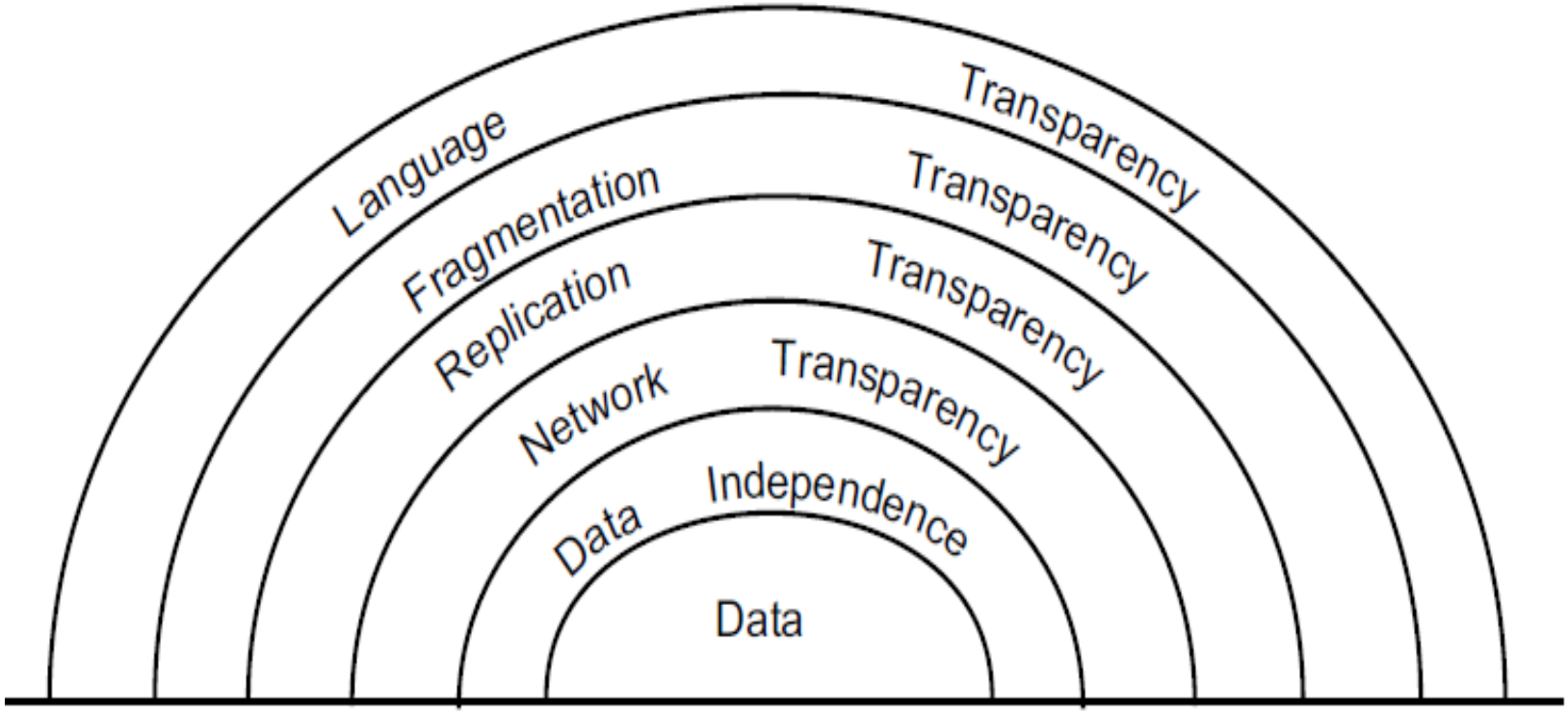
- Transparent management of distributed and replicated data.
- Reliable access to data through distributed transactions
- Improved performance.
- Easier system expansion.

Transparent Management of Distributed and Replicated Data

- Transparent system “hides” the implementation details from users.
- The advantage of a fully transparent DBMS is the high level of support that it provides for the development of complex applications

Layers of Transparency

- The system needs to be able to deal with a number of different types of transparencies.



Data Independence

- It refers to the immunity of user applications to changes in the definition and organization of data, and vice versa.
- **Types of data independence:**
  - Logical data independence
  - physical data independence..

Data Independence

- Logical data independence refers to the immunity of user applications to changes in the logical structure (i.e., schema) of the database.
- Physical data independence, on the other hand, deals with hiding the details of the storage structure from user applications

Network Transparency

- This type of transparency is referred to as network transparency or distribution transparency.
- The user should be protected from the operational details of the network; possibly even hiding the existence of the net.
- Distribution transparency requires that users do not have to specify where data are located.
- **Two types of distribution transparency :**
  - location transparency
  - naming transparency.

Network Transparency

- **Location transparency** refers to the fact that the command used to perform a task is independent of both the location of the data and the system on which an operation is carried out.
- **Naming transparency** means that a unique name is provided for each object in the database.

Replication Transparency

- The transparency issue is whether the users should be aware of the existence of copies or whether the system should handle the management of copies and the user should act as if there is a single copy of the data.
- Remember that replication transparency refers only to the existence of replicas, not to their actual location.

Fragmentation Transparency

- When database objects are fragmented, we have to deal with the problem of handling user queries that are specified on entire relations but have to be executed on subrelations. In other words, the issue is one of finding a query processing strategy based on the fragments rather than the relations.
- Typically, this requires a translation from what is called a global query to several fragment queries.

Who Should Provide Transparency?

- It is possible to identify three distinct layers at which the transparency services can be provided.
- the access layer.
- the operating system level
- The third layer at which transparency can be supported is within the DBMS.

Question?

Lec5:
Distributed Database Design

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Designing distributed databases

Two major strategies that have been identified for designing distributed databases are :

- Top-down approach
- Bottom-up approach.

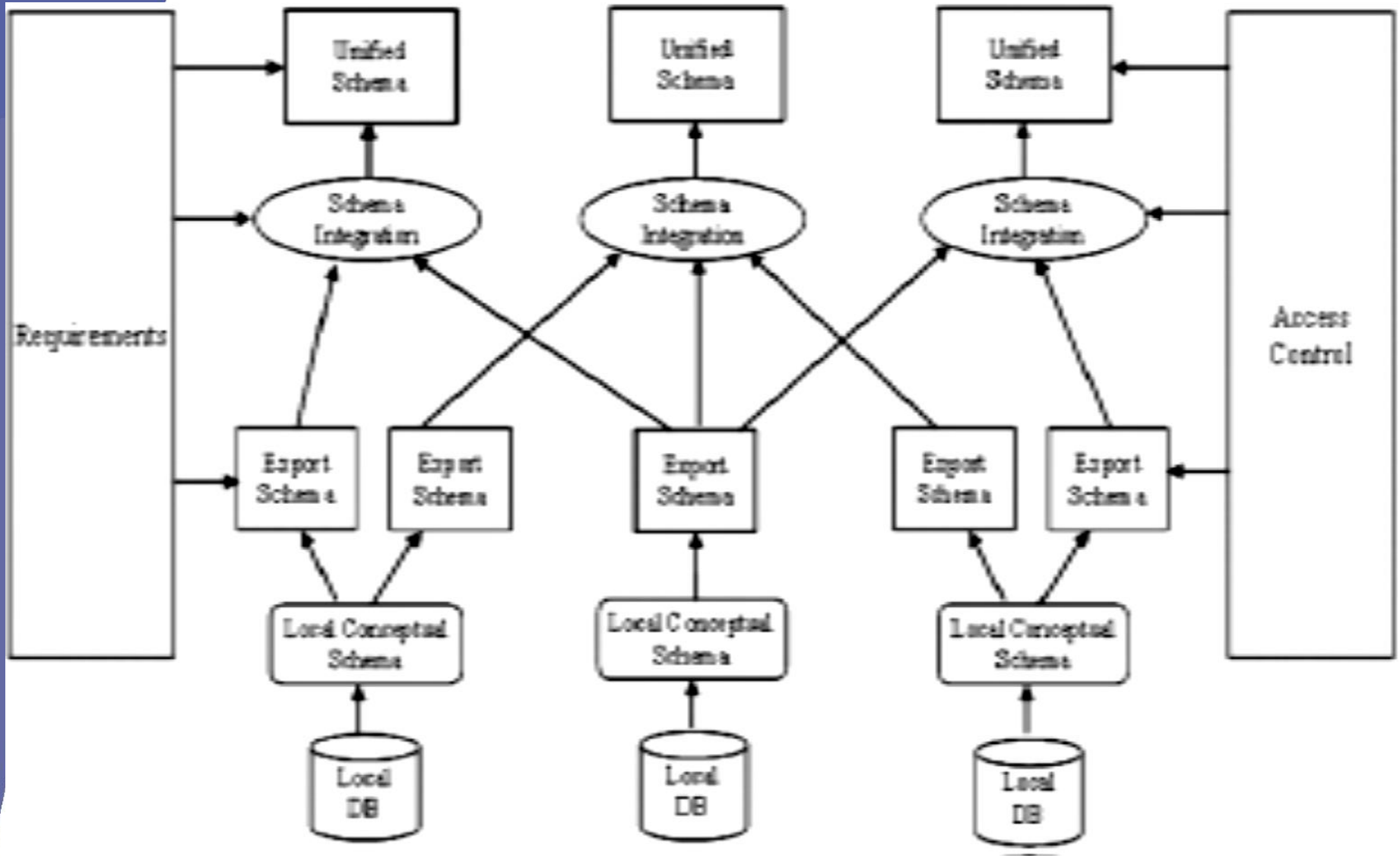
Bottom-up approach

- A **bottom–up** design approach considers the existing data distributed within an organization and uses a process called **schema integration** to create at least one unified schema.
- **Schema integration** is a process that uses a collection of existing conceptual model elements, which have previously been exported from one or more LCMs, to generate a semantically integrated model (a single, unified schema).

Bottom-up approach(cont.)

- **Unified Schema** An integrated, nonredundant, and consistent schema for a set of local database systems.

Bottom-up approach



Distribution Design activity

- The goal of any data distribution is to provide for increased availability, reliability, and improved query access time.
- The distribution design activity are:
  - Allocation (Non Replicated, Non Fragmented)
  - Fragmentation
  - Replication.
  - Mixed

Allocation

- **Allocation** allows a designer to place different tables of a given database at different sites.
- The idea is that data should be placed close to (or at the site) where it is needed the most.
- The benefit of this approach is the reduction of the communication component of the processing cost.

Fragmentation

- Fragmentation design approach breaks a table up into two or more pieces called fragments or partitions and allows storage of these pieces in different sites.
- Fragmentation provides for increased parallelism, access, disaster recovery, and security/privacy

Fragmentation

- There are three alternatives to fragmentation:
  - Vertical fragmentation
  - Horizontal fragmentation
  - Hybrid fragmentation.
- Horizontal fragmentation can further be classified into two classes:
  - Primary horizontal fragmentation (PHF)
  - Derived horizontal fragmentation (DHF).

Fragmentation

- When thinking about fragmentation, designers need to decide on the **degree of granularity** for each fragment. In other words, how many of the table columns and/or rows should be in a fragment

Vertical Fragmentation

- Vertical fragmentation (VF) will group the columns of a table into fragments.
- VF must be done in such a way that the original table can be reconstructed from the fragments.
- This fragmentation requirement is called “reconstructiveness.” This requirement is used to reconstruct the original table when needed.

EXAMPLE

EmpID	Name	Loc	Sal	DOB	Dept
283948	Joe	LA	25,000	2/6/43	Maintenance
109288	Larry	New York	35,200	12/3/52	Payroll
284003	Moe	LA	43,000	7/12/56	Maintenance
320021	Sam	New York	53,500	8/30/47	Production
123456	Steve	Minneapolis	67,000	5/14/78	Management
334456	Jack	New York	55,000	5/30/67	Production
222222	Saeed	Minneapolis	34,000	4/27/59	Management

EMP Table

VF EXAMPLE

- **Example:**

```
Create table EMP_SAL as
Select EmpID, Sal
From EMP;
```

```
Create table EMP_NON_SAL as
Select EmpID, Name, Loc, DOB, Dept
 From EMP;
```

Fragmentation transparency

- After fragmentation, the EMP table will not be stored physically anywhere. But, to provide for fragmentation transparency—not requiring the users to know that the EMP table is fragmented. To do this, we will use the join statement anywhere the EMP table is required.

EXAMPLE

```
Select EMP_SAL.EmpID, Sal, Name, Loc, DOB, Dept
From EMP_SAL, EMP_NON_SAL
Where EMP_SAL.EmpID = EMP_NON_SAL.EmpID;
```

Horizontal Fragment

- Horizontal Fragment (HF) will group the rows of a table based on the values of one or more columns.
- Every horizontal fragment must have all columns of the original base table.
- To create a horizontal fragment from a table, a select statement is used. For example, the following statement selects the row from R satisfying condition C:

Select * from R where C;

Primary Horizontal Fragmentation

- **Primary Horizontal Fragmentation** (PHF) partitions a table horizontally based on the values of one or more columns of the table.
- **Example :** Consider the EMP table. Suppose we have three branch offices, with each employee working at only one office. For ease of use, we decide that information for a given employee should be stored in the DBMS server at the branch office where that employee works.

Example

```
Create table MPLS_EMPS as Select *
From EMP
Where Loc = ‘Minneapolis’;
```

```
Create table LA_EMPS as Select *
From EMP
Where Loc = ‘LA’;
```

```
Create table NY_EMPS as Select *
From EMP
Where Loc = ‘New York’;
```

Horizontal Fragmentation Transparency

- After fragmentation, the EMP table will not be physically stored anywhere.
- To provide for horizontal fragmentation transparency, we have to be able to reconstruct.
- The EMP table from its HF fragments. To do this, we will use the union statement anywhere the EMP table is required.

Example

```
Select * from MPLS_EMPS
Union
Select * from LA_EMPS
Union
Select * from NY_EMPS;
```

Derived Horizontal Fragmentation

- **Derived Horizontal Fragmentation (DHF)** is fragment a table according to the way that another table is fragmented. DHF A horizontal fragmentation approach that fragments rows of a table based on the values of columns of another table.
- DHF is usually used for two tables that are naturally (and frequently) joined. Therefore, storing corresponding fragments from the two tables at the same site will speed up the join across the two tables.

Example

```
Create table PROJ1 as
Select Pno, Pname, Budget, PROJ.Dno
From PROJ, MPLS_DEPTS
Where PROJ.Dno = MPLS_DEPTS.Dno;
```

```
Create table PROJ2 as
Select Pno, Pname, Budget, PROJ.Dno
From PROJ, NY_DEPTS
Where PROJ.Dno = NY_DEPTS.Dno;
```

```
Create table PROJ3 as
Select Pno, Pname, Budget, PROJ.Dno
From PROJ, LA_DEPTS
Where PROJ.Dno = LA_DEPTS.Dno;
```

Hybrid Fragmentation

- **Hybrid fragmentation** (HyF) uses a combination of horizontal and vertical fragmentation to generate the fragments we need.
- There are two approaches to doing this. In the first approach, we generate a set of horizontal fragments and then vertically fragment one of more of these horizontal fragments. In the second approach, we generate a set of vertical fragments and then horizontally fragment one or more of these vertical fragments.

Hybrid Fragmentation

- This fragmentation approach provides for the most flexibility for the designers but at the same time it is the most expensive approach with respect to reconstruction of the original table.

Example

```
Create table NON_SAL_MPLS_EMPS as
Select EmpID, Name, Loc, DOB, Dept
From EMP
Where Loc = ‘Minneapolis’;
```

```
Create table NON_SAL_LA_EMPS as
Select EmpID, Name, Loc, DOB, Dept
From EMP
Where Loc = ‘LA’;
```

```
Create table NON_SAL_NY_EMPS as
Select EmpID, Name, Loc, DOB, Dept
From EMP
Where Loc = ‘New York’;
```

Replicated

- **Replicated** is the more copies of a table/fragment one creates, the easier it is to query that table/fragment. On the other hand, the more copies that exist, the more complicated (and time consuming) it is to update all the copies.
- **There are tow alternative of replicated**:
  - Fully replicated.
  - Partially replicated.

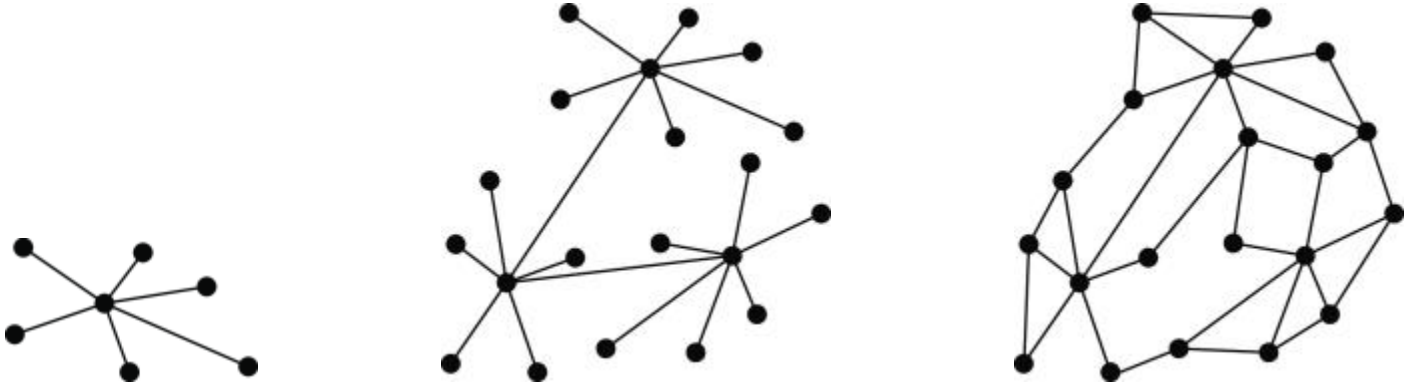
Replicated

- **Fully Replicated** This design alternative stores one copy of each database table at every site. provides for the best possible query performance.
- **Partially Replicated** In this distribution alternative, the designer will make copies of some of the tables (or fragments) in the database and store these copies at different sites. This is based on the belief that the frequency of accessing database tables is not uniform.

Distributed Systems

Chapter 01: Introduction

Distributed versus Decentralized



Centralized Decentralized Distributed

When does a decentralized system become distributed?

- Adding 1 link between two nodes in a decentralized system?
- Adding 2 links between two other nodes?
- In general: adding $k > 0$ links....?

Alternative approach

Two views on realizing distributed systems

- Integrative view: connecting existing networked computer systems into a larger a system.
- Expansive view: an existing networked computer systems is extended with additional computers

Two definitions

- A decentralized system is a networked computer system in which processes and resources are necessarily spread across multiple computers.
- A distributed system is a networked computer system in which processes and resources are sufficiently spread across multiple computers.

Perspectives on distributed systems

Distributed systems are complex: take persepctives

- Architecture: common organizations
- Process: what kind of processes, and their relationships
- Communication: facilities for exchanging data
- Coordination: application-independent algorithms
- Naming: how do you identify resources?
- Consistency and replication: performance requires of data, which need to be the same
- Fault tolerance: keep running in the presence of partial failures
- Security: ensure authorized access to resources

What do we want to achieve?

Overall design goals

- Support sharing of resources
- Distribution transparency
- Openness
- Scalability

Sharing resources

Canonical examples

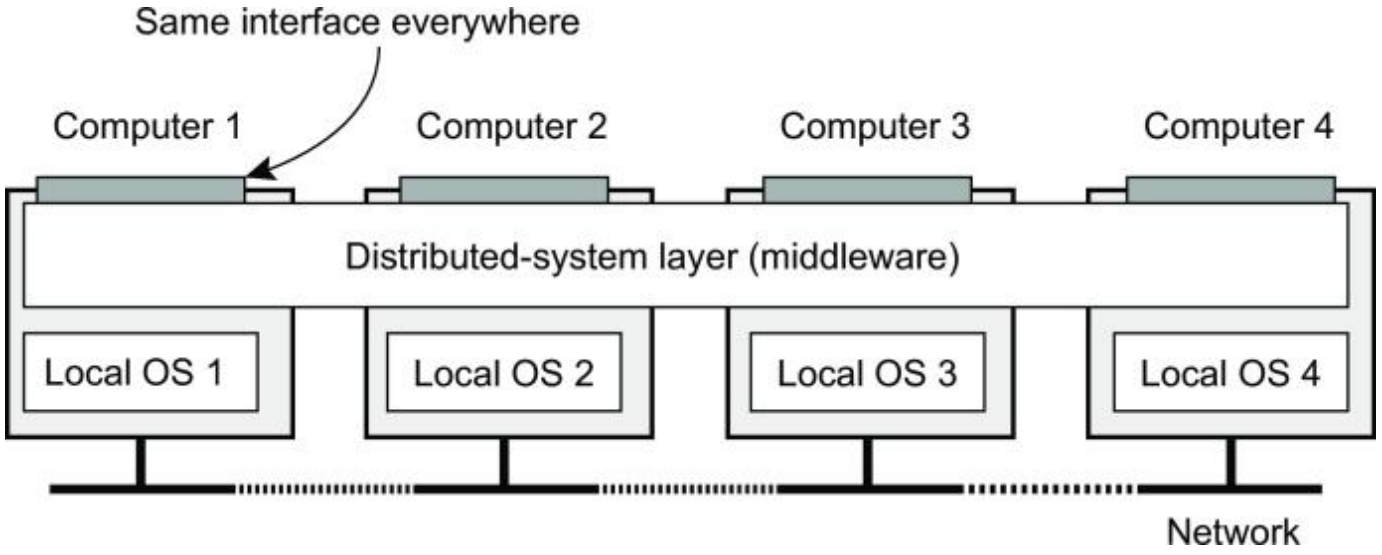
- Cloud-based shared storage and files
- Peer-to-peer assisted multimedia streaming
- Shared mail services (think of outsourced mail systems)
- Shared Web hosting (think of content distribution networks)

Observation

"The network is the computer"

quote from John Gage, then at (Sun Microsystems)

Distribution transparency



What is transparency?

The phenomenon by which a distributed system attempts to hide the fact that its processes and resources are physically distributed across multiple computers, possibly separated by large distances.

Observation

Distribution transparancy is handled through many different techniques in a layer between applications and operating systems: a middleware layer

Distribution transparency

Types

Transparency	Description
Access	Hide differences in data representation and how an object is accessed
Location	Hide where an object is located
Relocation	Hide that an object may be moved to another location while in use
Migration	Hide that an object may move to another location
Replication	Hide that an object is replicated
Concurrency	Hide that an object may be shared by several independent users
Failure	Hide the failure and recovery of an object

Degree of transparency

Aiming at full distribution transparency may be too much

- There are communication latencies that cannot be hidden
- Completely hiding failures of networks and nodes is (theoretically and practically) impossible
  - You cannot distinguish a slow computer from a failing one
  - You can never be sure that a server actually performed an operation before a crash
- Full transparency will cost performance, exposing distribution of the system
  - Keeping replicas exactly up-to-date with the master takes time
  - Immediately flushing write operations to disk for fault tolerance

Degree of transparency

Exposing distribution may be good

- Making use of location-based services (finding your nearby friends)
- When dealing with users in different time zones
- When it makes it easier for a user to understand what's going on (when e.g., a server does not respond for a long time, report it as failing).

Conclusion

Distribution transparency is a nice goal, but achieving it is a different story, and it should often not even be aimed at.

Openness of distributed systems

Open distributed system

A system that offers components that can easily be used by, or integrated into other systems. An open distributed system itself will often consist of components that originate from elsewhere.

What are we talking about?

Be able to interact with services from other open systems, irrespective of the underlying environment:

- Systems should conform to well-defined interfaces
- Systems should easily interoperate
- Systems should support portability of applications
- Systems should be easily extensible

Policies versus mechanisms

Implementing openness: policies

- What level of consistency do we require for client-cached data?
- Which operations do we allow downloaded code to perform?
- Which QoS requirements do we adjust in the face of varying bandwidth?
- What level of secrecy do we require for communication?

Implementing openness: mechanisms

- Allow (dynamic) setting of caching policies
- Support different levels of trust for mobile code
- Provide adjustable QoS parameters per data stream
- Offer different encryption algorithms

Reliability versus availability

Reliability $R(t)$ of component C

Conditional probability that C has been functioning correctly during $[0, t)$ given C was functioning correctly at the time $T = 0$.

Traditional metrics

- Mean Time To Failure ($MTTF$): The average time until a component fails.
- Mean Time To Repair ($MTTR$): The average time needed to repair a component.
- Mean Time Between Failures ($MTBF$): Simply $MTTF + MTTR$.

Terminology

Failure, error, fault

Term	Description	Example
Failure	A component is not living up to its specifications	Crashed program
Error	Part of a component that can lead to a failure	Programming bug
Fault	Cause of an error	Sloppy programmer

Terminology

Handling faults

Term	Description	Example
Fault prevention	Prevent the occurrence of a fault	Don't hire sloppy programmers
Fault tolerance	Build a component and make it mask the occurrence of a fault	Build each component by two independent programmers
Fault removal	Reduce the presence, number, or seriousness of a fault	Get rid of sloppy programmers
Fault forecasting	Estimate current presence, future incidence, and consequences of faults	Estimate how a recruiter is doing when it comes to hiring sloppy programmers

Scale in distributed systems

Observation

Many developers of modern distributed systems easily use the adjective "scalable" without making clear why their system actually scales.

At least three components

- Number of users or processes (size scalability)
- Maximum distance between nodes (geographical scalability)
- Number of administrative domains (administrative scalability)

Observation

Most systems account only, to a certain extent, for size scalability. Often a solution: multiple powerful servers operating independently in parallel. Today, the challenge still lies in geographical and administrative scalability.

Size scalability

Root causes for scalability problems with centralized solutions

- The computational capacity, limited by the CPUs
- The storage capacity, including the transfer rate between CPUs and disks
- The network between the user and the centralized service

Problems with geographical scalability

- Cannot simply go from LAN to WAN: many distributed systems assume synchronous client-server interactions: client sends request and waits for an answer. Latency may easily prohibit this scheme.
- WAN links are often inherently unreliable: simply moving streaming video from LAN to WAN is bound to fail.
- Lack of multipoint communication, so that a simple search broadcast cannot be deployed. Solution is to develop separate naming and directory services (having their own scalability problems).

Problems with administrative scalability

Essence

Conflicting policies concerning usage (and thus payment), management, and security

Examples

- Computational grids: share expensive resources between different domains.
- Shared equipment: how to control, manage, and use a shared radio telescope constructed as large-scale shared sensor network?

Exception: several peer-to-peer networks

- File-sharing systems (based, e.g., on BitTorrent)
- Peer-to-peer telephony (early versions of Skype)
- Peer-assisted audio streaming (Spotify)

Note: end users collaborate and not administrative entities.

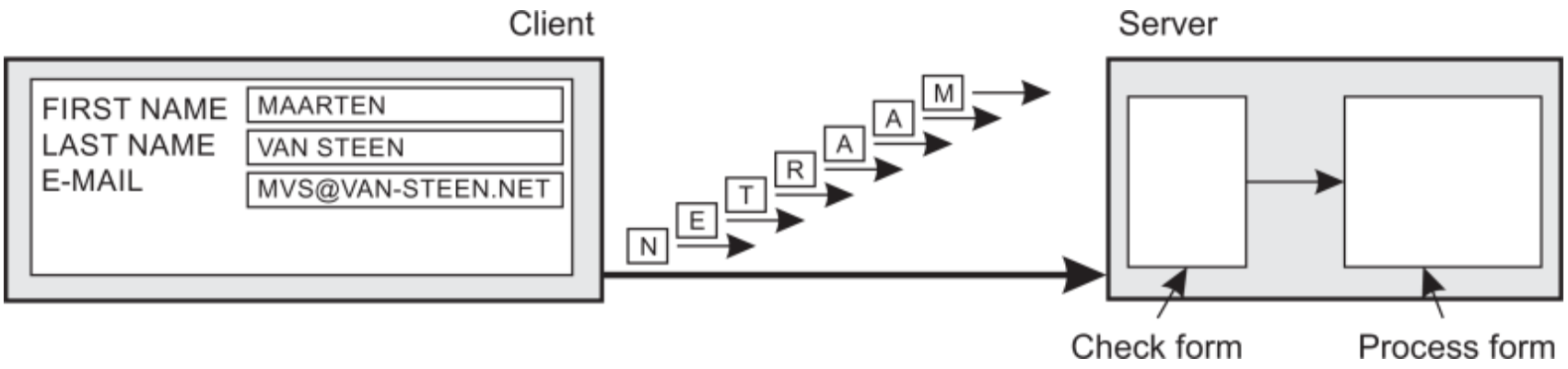
Techniques for scaling

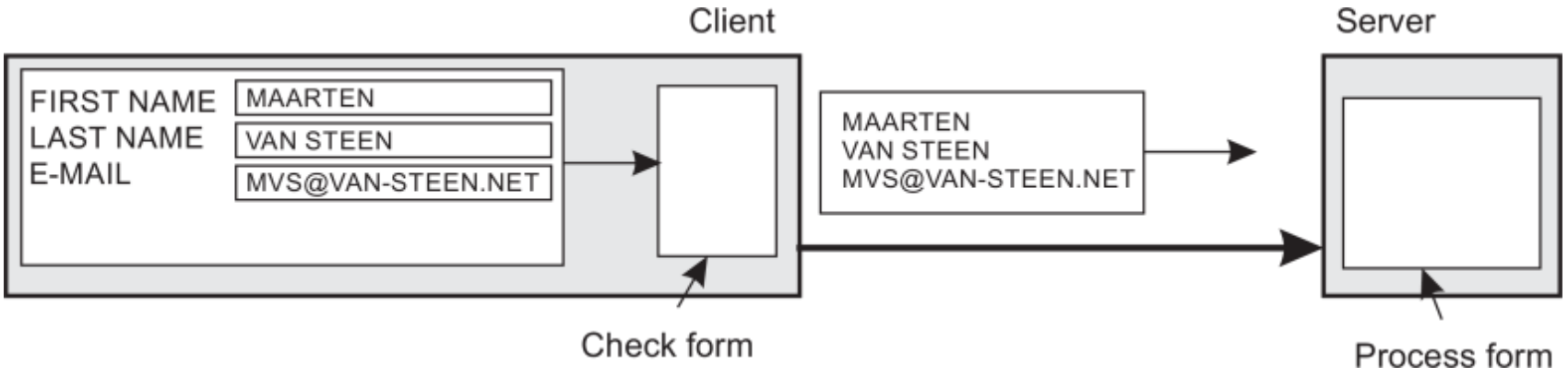
Hide communication latencies

- Make use of asynchronous communication
- Have separate handler for incoming response
- Problem: not every application fits this model

Techniques for scaling

Facilitate solution by moving computations to client





Techniques for scaling

Partition data and computations across multiple machines

- Move computations to clients (Java applets and scripts)
- Decentralized naming services (DNS)
- Decentralized information systems (WWW)

Techniques for scaling

Replication and caching: Make copies of data available at different machines

- Replicated file servers and databases
- Mirrored Websites
- Web caches (in browsers and proxies)
- File caching (at server and client)

Scaling: The problem with replication

Applying replication is easy, except for one thing

- Having multiple copies (cached or replicated), leads to inconsistencies: modifying one copy makes that copy different from the rest.
- Always keeping copies consistent and in a general way requires global synchronization on each modification.
- Global synchronization precludes large-scale solutions.

Observation

If we can tolerate inconsistencies, we may reduce the need for global synchronization, but tolerating inconsistencies is application dependent.

Distributed Systems

Chapter 02: Architectures

Architectural styles

Basic idea

A style is formulated in terms of

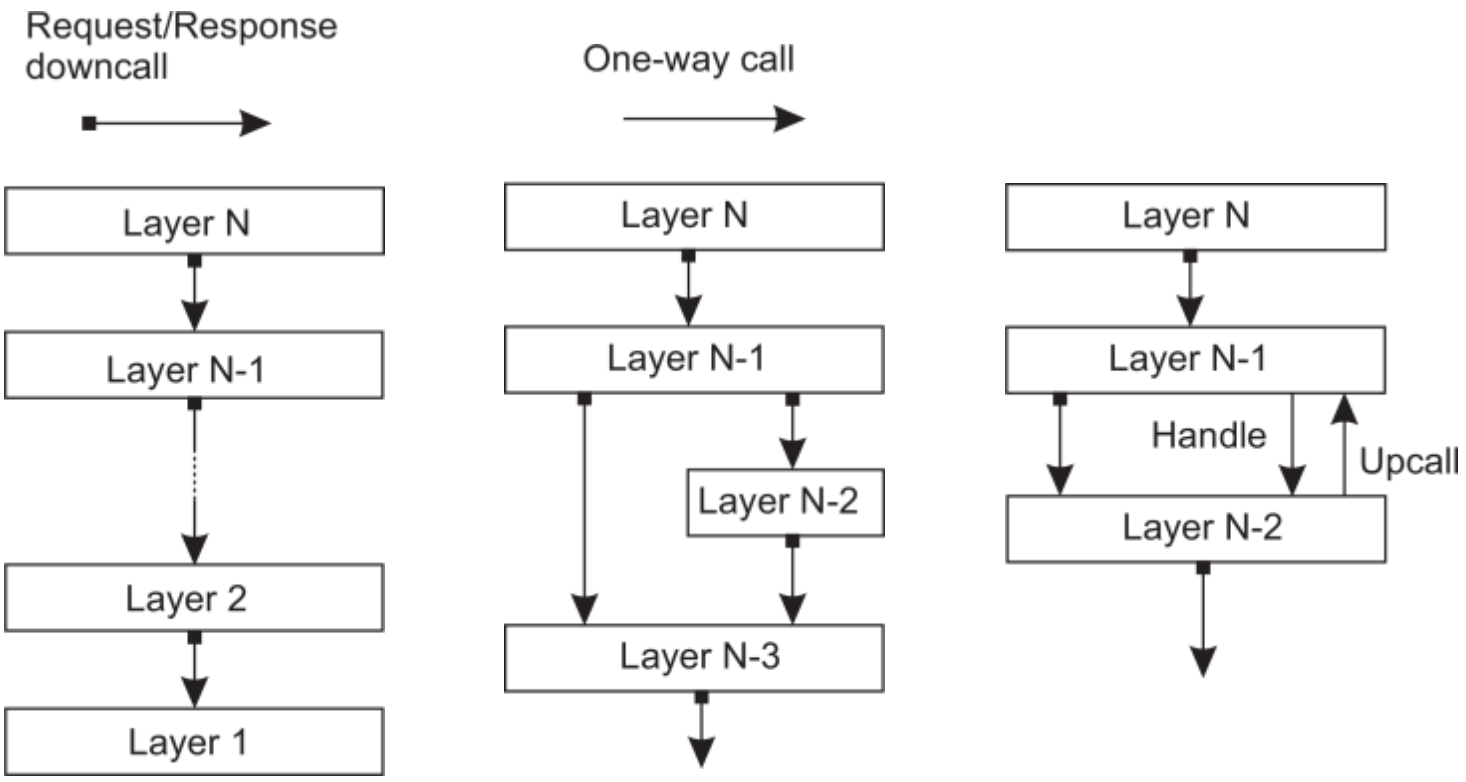
- (replaceable) components with well-defined interfaces
- the way that components are connected to each other
- the data exchanged between components
- how these components and connectors are jointly configured into a system.

Connector

A mechanism that mediates communication, coordination, or cooperation among components. Example: facilities for (remote) procedure call, messaging, or streaming.

Layered architecture

Different layered organizations



(a) (b) (c)

Application Layering

Traditional three-layered view

- Application-interface layer contains units for interfacing to users or external applications
- Processing layer contains the functions of an application, i.e., without specific data
- Data layer contains the data that a client wants to manipulate through the application components

Application Layering

Traditional three-layered view

- Application-interface layer contains units for interfacing to users or external applications
- Processing layer contains the functions of an application, i.e., without specific data
- Data layer contains the data that a client wants to manipulate through the application components

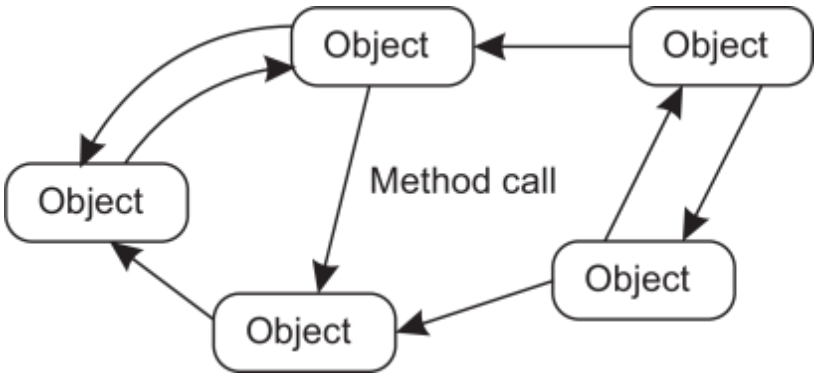
Observation

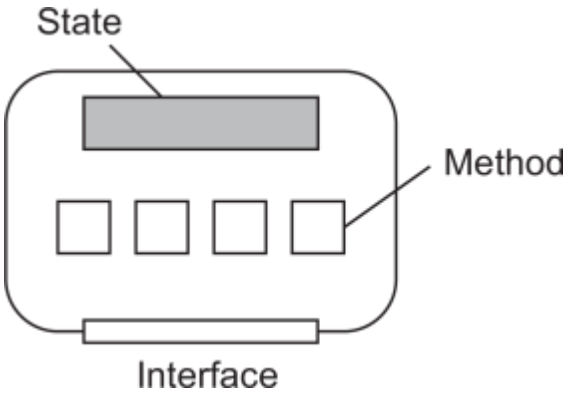
This layering is found in many distributed information systems, using traditional database technology and accompanying applications.

Object-based style

Essence

Components are objects, connected to each other through procedure calls. Objects may be placed on different machines; calls can thus execute across a network.





Encapsulation

Objects are said to encapsulate data and offer methods on that data without revealing the internal implementation.

RESTful architectures

Essence

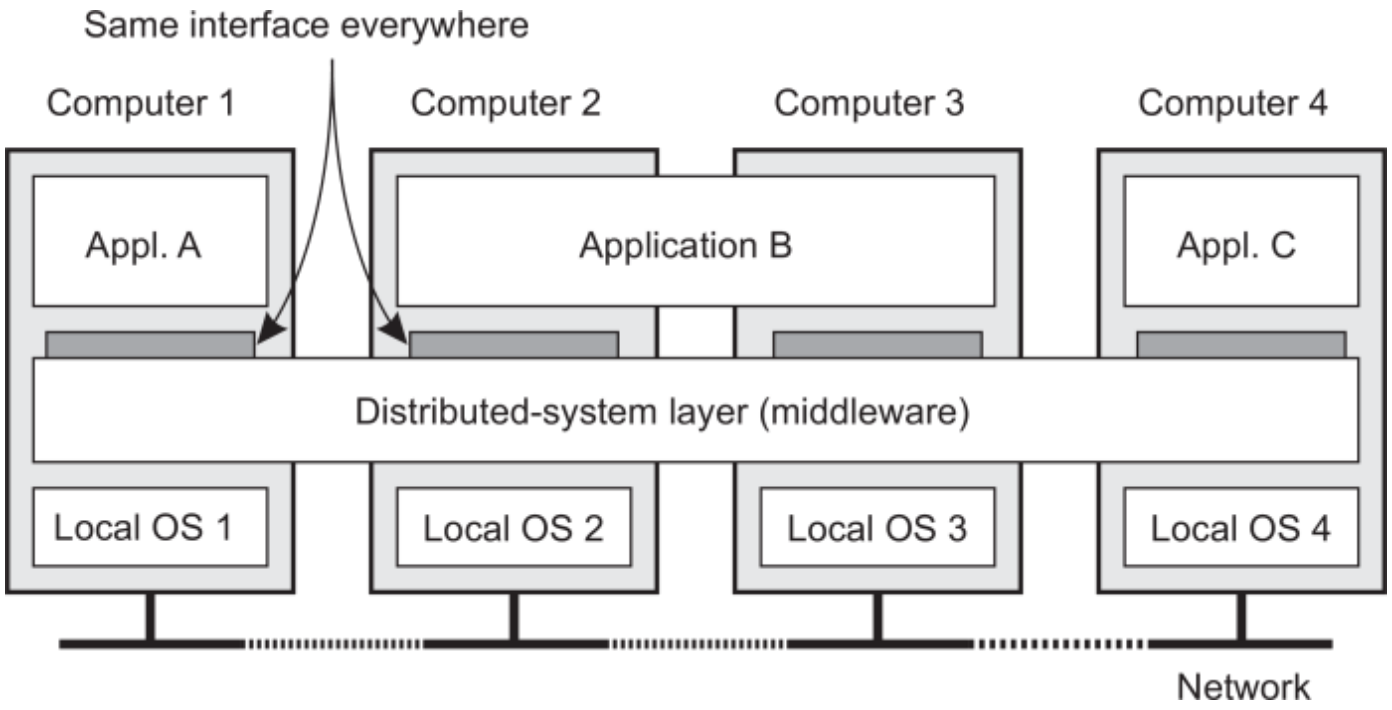
View a distributed system as a collection of resources, individually managed by components. Resources may be added, removed, retrieved, and modified by (remote) applications.

١. Resources are identified through a single naming scheme
٢. All services offer the same interface
٣. Messages sent to or from a service are fully self-described
٤. After executing an operation at a service, that component forgets everything about the caller

Basic operations

Operation	Description
PUT	Create a new resource
GET	Retrieve the state of a resource in some representation
DELETE	Delete a resource
POST	Modify a resource by transferring a new state

Middleware: the OS of distributed systems



What does it contain?

Commonly used components and functions that need not be implemented by applications separately.

Using legacy to build middleware

Problem

The interfaces offered by a legacy component are most likely not suitable for all applications.

Solution

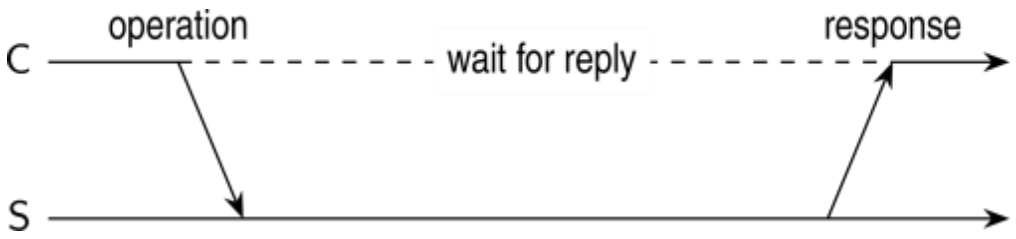
A wrapper or adapter offers an interface acceptable to a client application. Its functions are transformed into those available at the component.

Centralized system architectures

Basic Client–Server Model

Characteristics:

- There are processes offering services (servers)
- There are processes that use services (clients)
- Clients and servers can be on different machines
- Clients follow request/reply model regarding using services

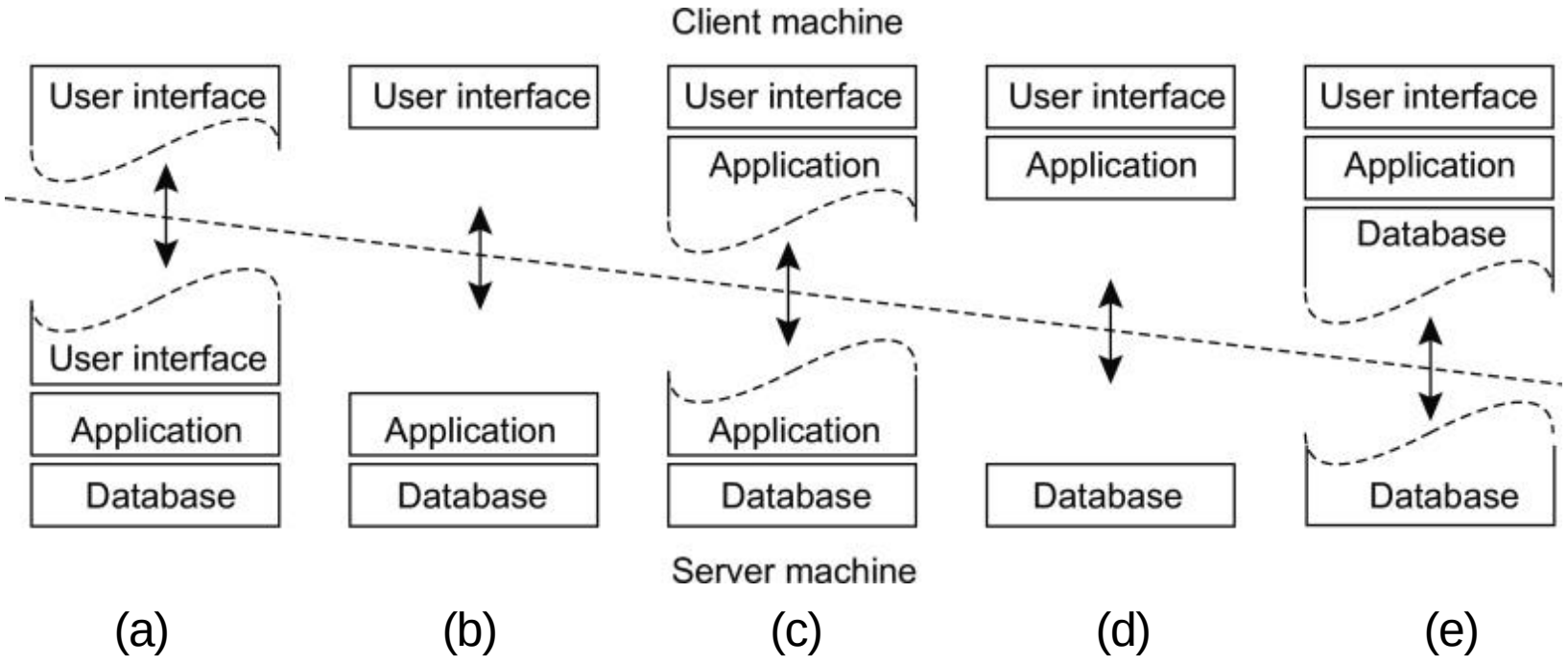


Multi-tiered centralized system architectures

Some traditional organizations

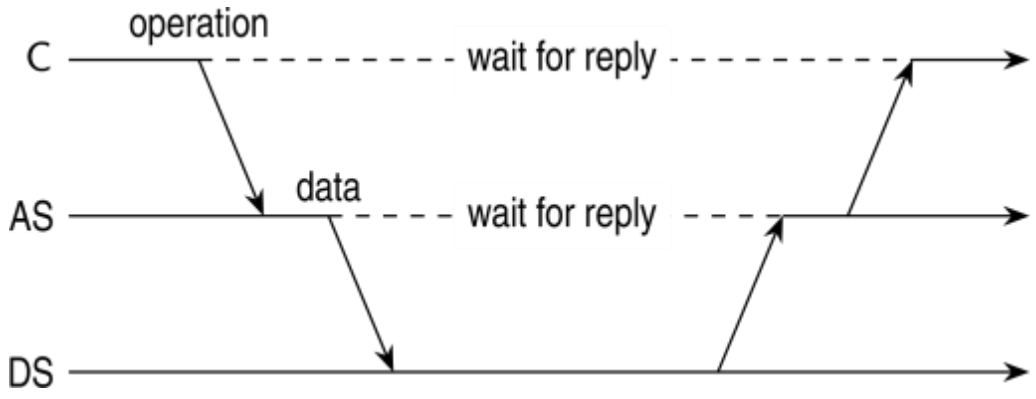
- Single-tiered: dumb terminal/mainframe configuration
- Two-tiered: client/single server configuration
- Three-tiered: each layer on separate machine

Traditional two-tiered configurations

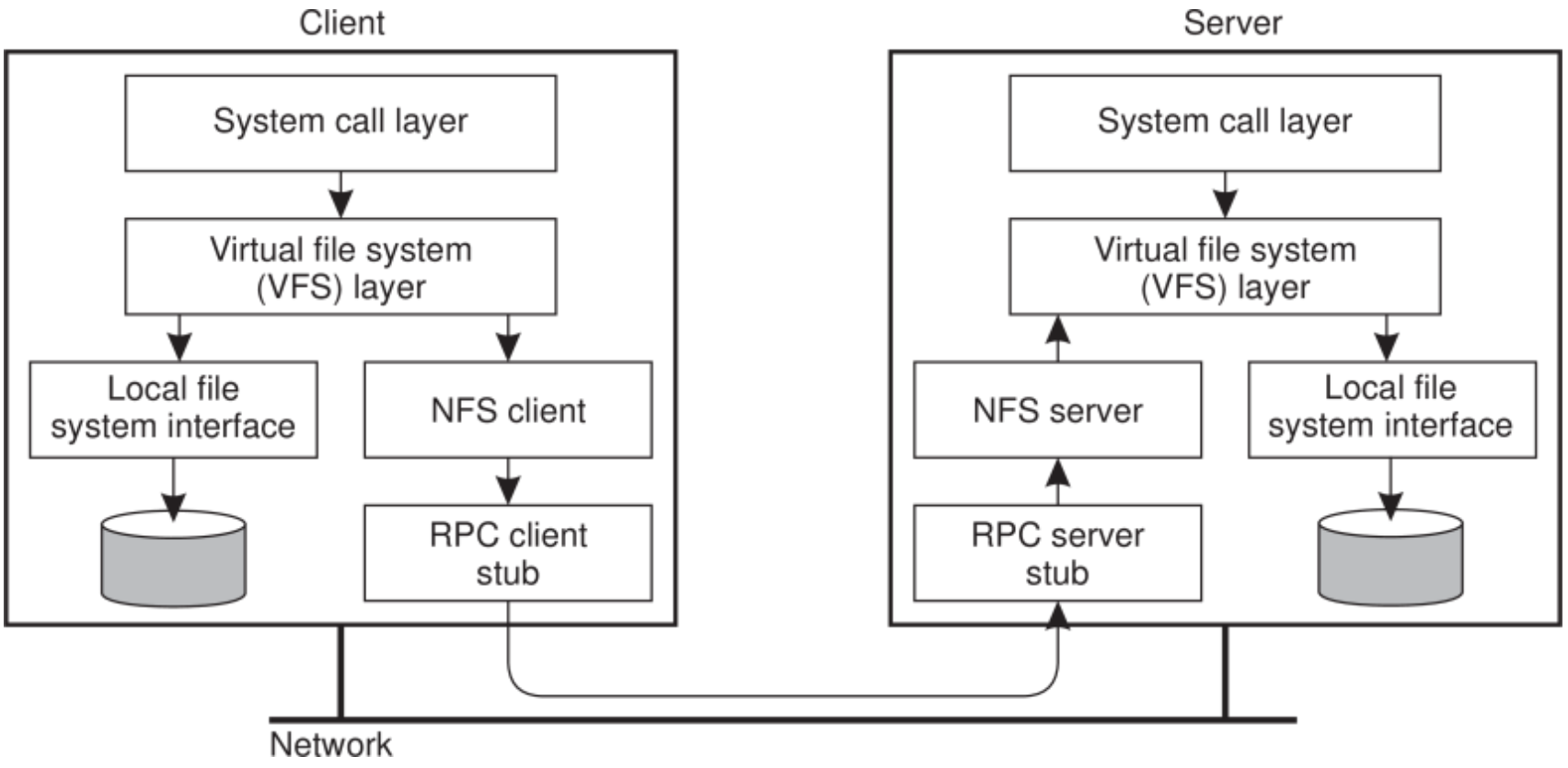


Being client and server at the same time

Three-tiered architecture



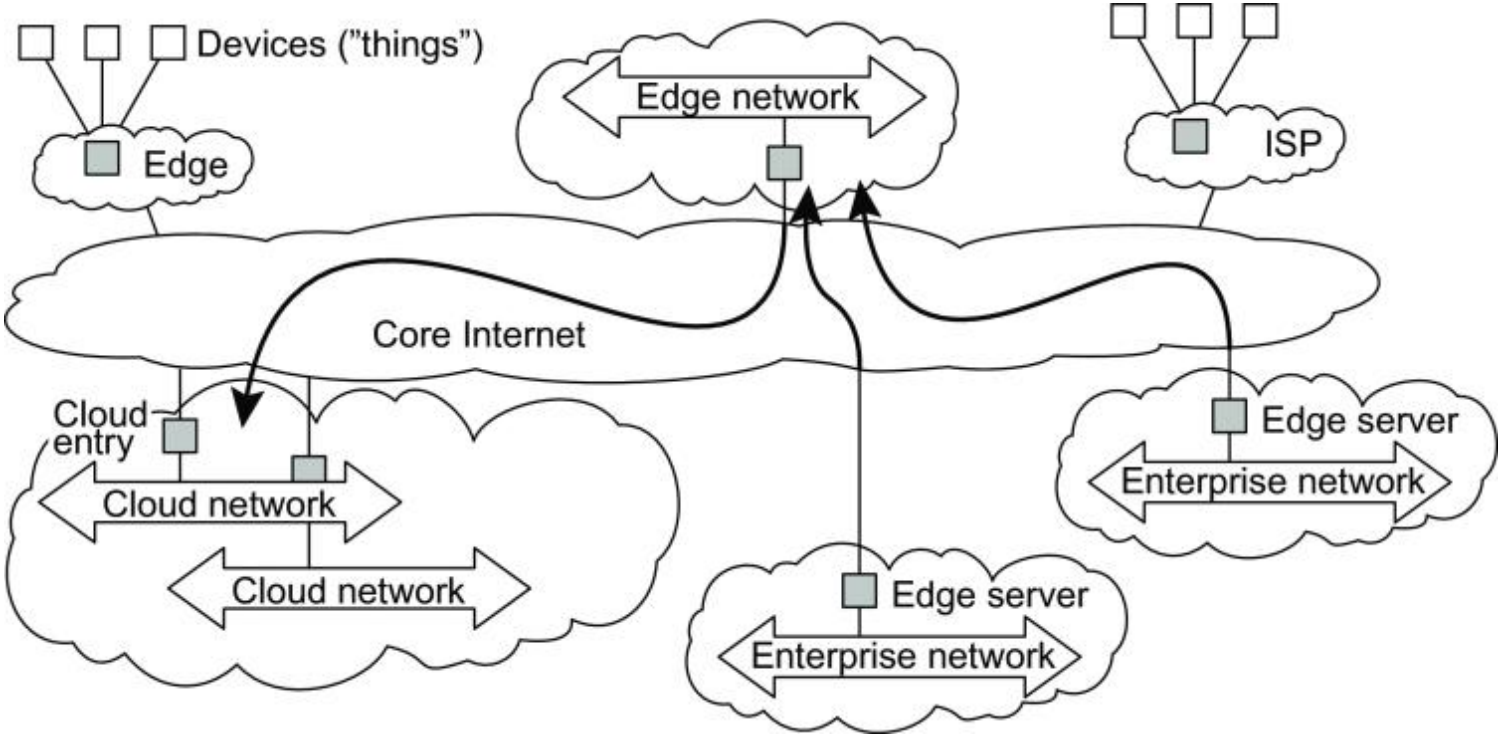
NFS architecture



Edge-server architecture

Essence

Systems deployed on the Internet where servers are placed at the edge of the network: the boundary between enterprise networks and the actual Internet.



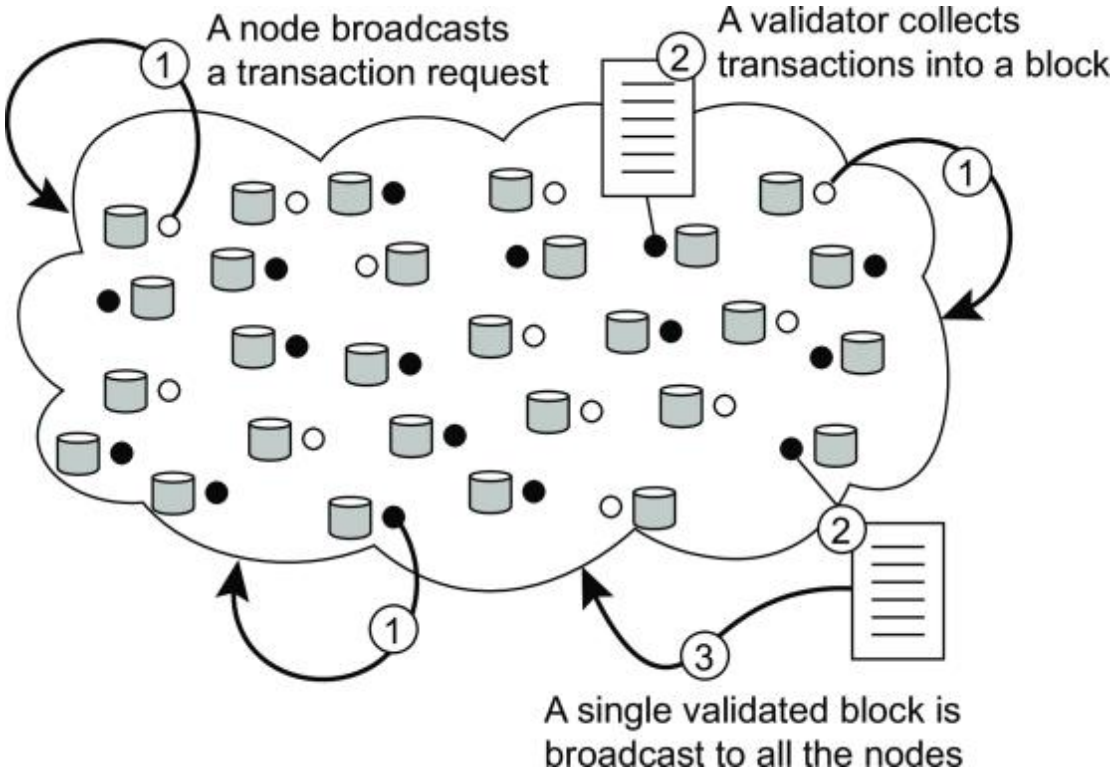
Reasons for having an edge infrastructure

Commonly (and often misconceived) arguments

- Latency and bandwidth: Especially important for certain real-time applications, such as augmented/virtual reality applications. Many people underestimate the latency and bandwidth to the cloud.
- Reliability: The connection to the cloud is often assumed to be unreliable, which is often a false assumption. There may be critical situations in which extremely high connectivity guarantees are needed.
- Security and privacy: The implicit assumption is often that when assets are nearby, they can be made better protected. Practice shows that this assumption is generally false. However, securely handling data operations in the cloud may be trickier than within your own organization.

Blockchains

Principle working of a blockchain system

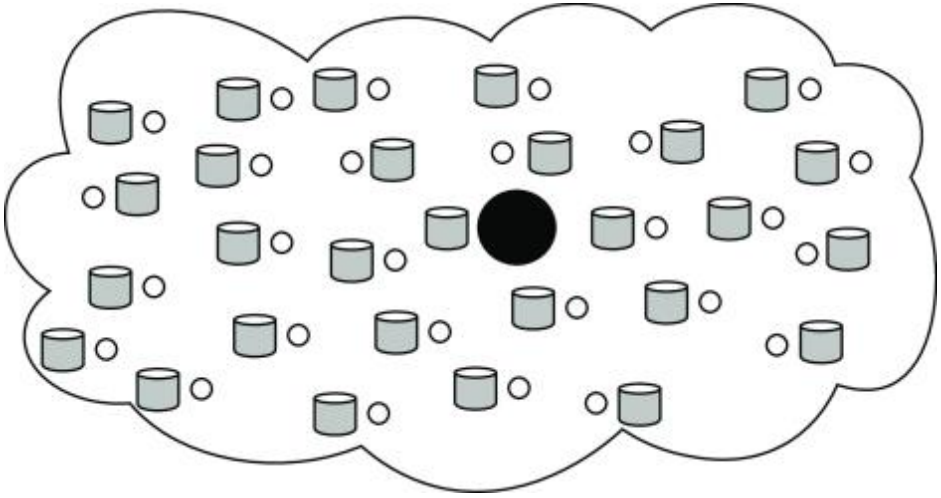


Observations

- Blocks are organized into an unforgeable append-only chain
- Each block in the blockchain is immutable ⇒ massive replication
- The real snag lies in who is allowed to append a block to a chain

Appending a block: distributed consensus

Centralized solution



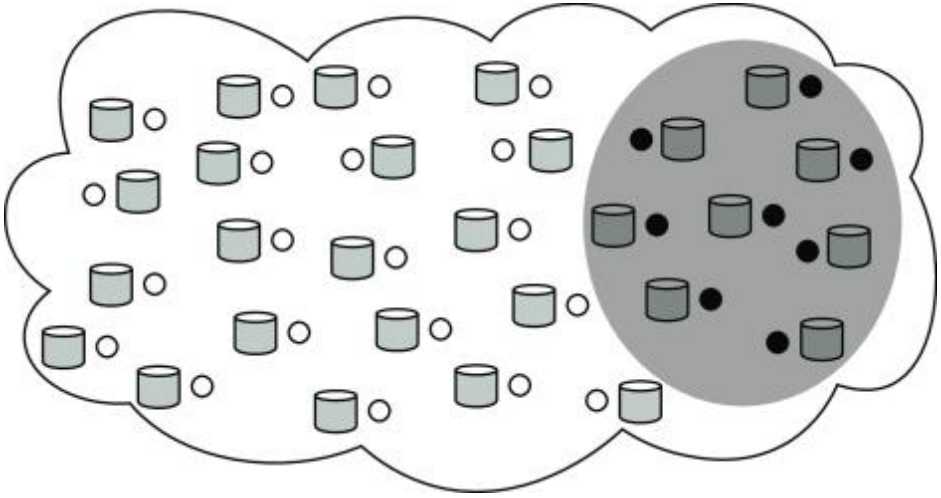
Observation

A single entity decides on which validator can go ahead and append a block.

Does not fit the design goals of blockchains.

Appending a block: distributed consensus

Distributed solution (permissioned)

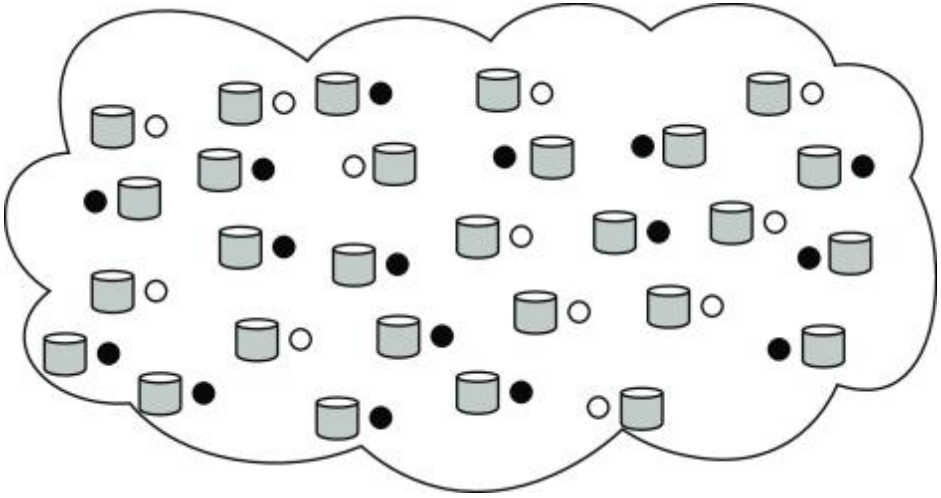


Observation

- A selected, relatively small group of servers jointly reach consensus on which validator can go ahead.
- None of these servers needs to be trusted, as long as roughly two-thirds behave according to their specifications.
- In practice, only a few tens of servers can be accommodated.

Appending a block: distributed consensus

Decentralized solution (permisionless)



Observation

- Participants collectively engage in a leader election. Only the elected leader is allowed to append a block of validated transactions.
- Large-scale, decentralized leader election that is fair, robust, secure, and so on, is far from trivial.

Distributed Systems

(4th edition, version 01)

Chapter 03: Processes

Introduction to threads

Basic idea

We build virtual processors in software, on top of physical processors:

Processor: Provides a set of instructions along with the capability of automatically executing a series of those instructions.

Thread: A minimal software processor in whose context a series of instructions can be executed. Saving a thread context implies stopping the current execution and saving all the data needed to continue the execution at a later stage.

Process: A software processor in whose context one or more threads may be executed. Executing a thread, means executing a series of instructions in the context of that thread.

Context switching

Contexts

- Processor context: The minimal collection of values stored in the registers of a processor used for the execution of a series of instructions (e.g., stack pointer, addressing registers, program counter).
- Thread context: The minimal collection of values stored in registers and memory, used for the execution of a series of instructions (i.e., processor context, state).
- Process context: The minimal collection of values stored in registers and memory, used for the execution of a thread (i.e., thread context, but now also at least MMU register values).

Context switching

Observations

١. Threads share the same address space. Thread context switching can be done entirely independent of the operating system.

٢. Process switching is generally (somewhat) more expensive as it involves getting the OS in the loop, i.e., trapping to the kernel.

٣. Creating and destroying threads is much cheaper than doing so for processes.

Why use threads

Some simple reasons

- Avoid needless blocking: a single-threaded process will block when doing I/O; in a multithreaded process, the operating system can switch the CPU to another thread in that process.
- Exploit parallelism: the threads in a multithreaded process can be scheduled to run in parallel on a multiprocessor or multicore processor.
- Avoid process switching: structure large applications not as a collection of processes, but through multiple threads.